

Chapter Summary

Night operations present additional risks that pilots should identify and assess. Night flying operations should not be encouraged or attempted, except by pilots that are certificated, current, and proficient in night flying. Prior to attempting night operations, pilots should receive training and be familiar with the risks associated with night flight and how they differ from daylight operations. Even for experienced pilots, night VFR operations should only be conducted in unrestricted visibility, favorable winds, both on the surface and aloft, and no turbulence. Additional information on pilot vision and illusions can be found in FAA brochure AM-400-98/2 at www.faa.gov/pilots/safety/pilotsafetybrochures/ and also in Chapters 2 and 17 of the Pilot's Handbook of Aeronautical Knowledge (FAA-H-8083-25) at www.faa.gov. Additional information on lighting aids can be found in Chapter 2 of the Aeronautical Information Manual (AIM), which can be accessed at www.faa.gov.

Airplane Flying Handbook (FAA-H-8083-3C)

Chapter 12: Transition to Complex Airplanes

Introduction

A high-performance airplane is defined as an airplane with an engine capable of developing more than 200 horsepower (see 14 CFR part 61, section 61.31(f)(1)). A complex airplane (see 14 CFR part 61, section 61.1) means an airplane that has a retractable landing gear, flaps, and a controllable pitch propeller, including airplanes equipped with an engine control system consisting of a digital computer and associated accessories for controlling the engine and propeller, such as a full authority digital engine control; or, in the case of a seaplane, flaps and a controllable pitch propeller, including seaplanes equipped with an engine control system consisting of a digital computer and associated accessories for controlling the engine and propeller, such as a full authority digital engine control.

Transition to a complex airplane, or a high-performance airplane, can be demanding for many pilots. Both increased performance and complexity require additional planning, judgment, and piloting skills. Transition to these types of airplanes, therefore, should be accomplished in a systematic manner through a structured course of training administered by a qualified flight instructor.

Airplanes can be designed to fly through a wide range of airspeeds. High speed flight requires smaller wing areas and moderately cambered airfoils whereas low speed flight is obtained with airfoils with a greater camber and larger wing area. [Figure 12-1] Many compromises are often made by designers to provide for higher speed cruise flight and low speeds for landing. Flaps are a common design effort to increase an airfoil's camber and surface area for lower-speed flight. [Figure 12-2]

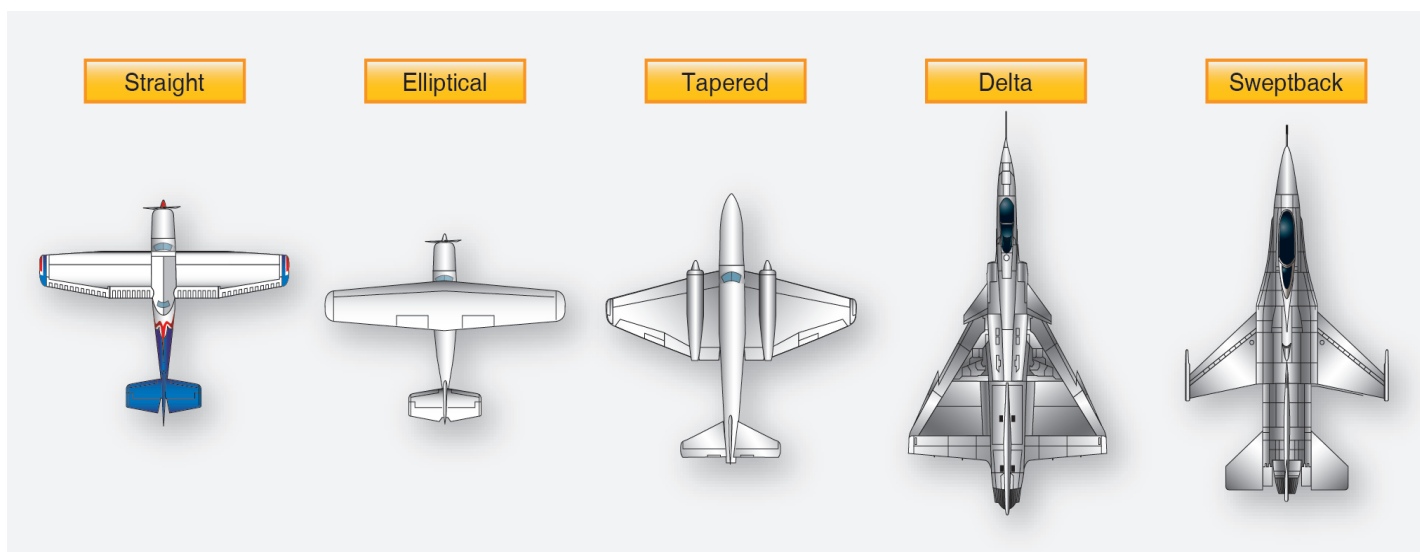


Figure 12-1. Airfoil types.

Since an airfoil cannot have two different cambers at the same time, designers and engineers deliver the desired performance characteristics using two different methods. Either the airfoil can be a compromise, or a cruise airfoil can be combined with a device for increasing the camber of the airfoil for low-speed flight. Camber is the asymmetry between the top and the bottom surfaces of an airfoil. One method for varying an airfoil's camber is the addition of trailing-edge flaps. Engineers call these devices a high-lift system.

Function of Flaps

Flaps work primarily by changing the camber of the airfoil, which increases the wing's lift coefficient. With some flap designs, the surface area of the wing is also increased. Flap deflection does not increase the critical (stall) angle of attack (AOA). In some cases, flap deflection actually decreases the critical AOA. Deflection of a wing's control surfaces, such as ailerons and flaps, alters both lift and drag. With aileron deflection, there is asymmetrical lift which imparts a rolling moment about the airplane's longitudinal axis. Wing flaps act symmetrically about the longitudinal axis producing no rolling moment; however, both lift and drag increase as well as a pitching moment about the lateral axis. Lift is a function of several variables including air density, velocity, surface area, and lift coefficient. Since flaps increase an airfoil's lift coefficient, lift is increased. [Figure 12-3]

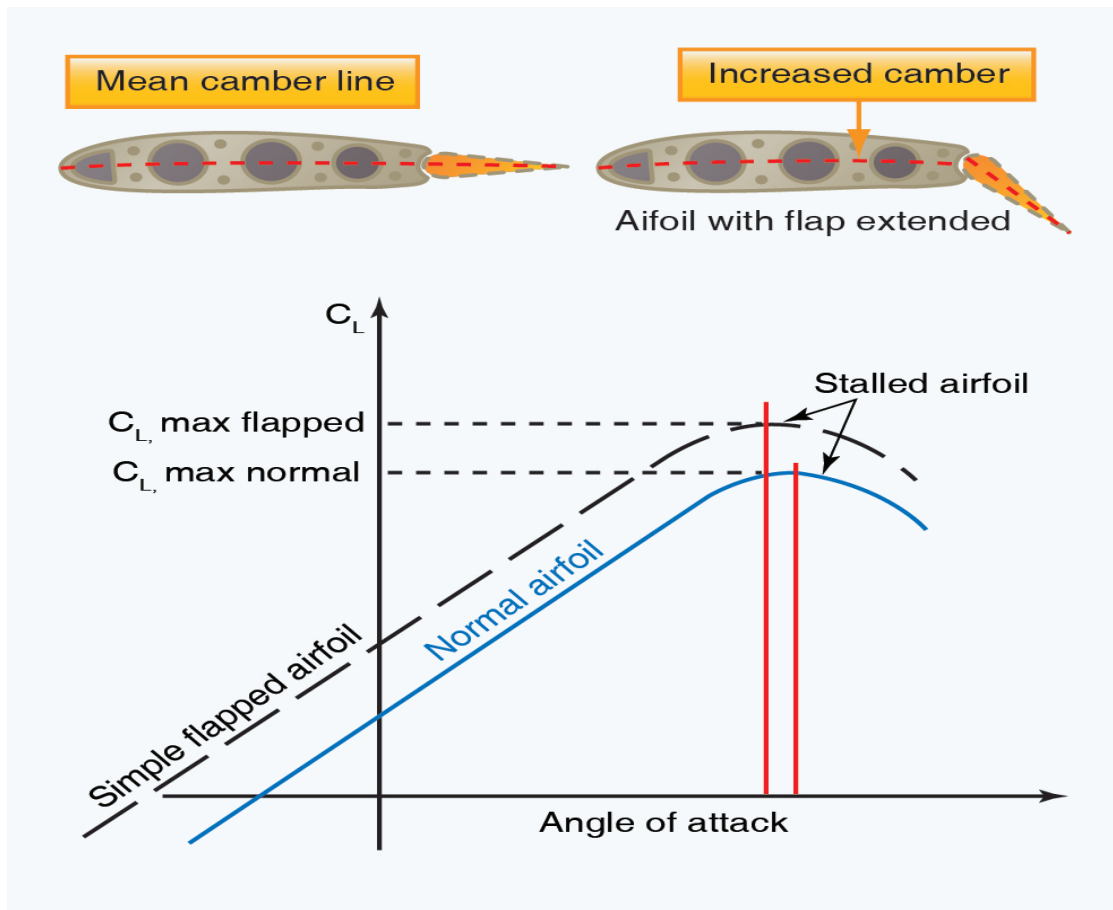


Figure 12-2. Coefficient of lift comparison for flap extended and retracted positions.

$$L = \frac{1}{2} \rho V^2 S C_L$$

L = Lift produced

P = Air density

V = Velocity relative to the air

S = Surface area of the wing

C_L = lift coefficient which is determined by the camber of the airfoil used, the chord of the wing and AOA

Figure 12-3. Lift equation.

As flaps are deflected, the aircraft may pitch nose-up, nose-down, or have minimal changes in pitch attitude. Pitching moment is caused by the rearward movement of the wing's center of pressure; however, that pitching behavior depends on several variables including flap type, wing position, downwash behavior, and horizontal tail location. Consequently, pitch behavior depends on the design features of the particular airplane.

Flap deflection of up to 15° primarily produces lift with minimal increases in drag. Deflection beyond 15° produces a large increase in drag. Drag from flap deflection is parasite drag and, as such, is proportional to the square of the speed. Also, deflection beyond 15° produces a significant nose-up pitching moment in most high-wing airplanes because the resulting downwash changes the airflow over the horizontal tail.

Flap Effectiveness

Flap effectiveness depends on a number of factors, but the most noticeable are size and type. For the purpose of this chapter, trailing edge flaps are classified as four basic types: plain (hinge), split, slotted, and Fowler. [Figure 12-4]

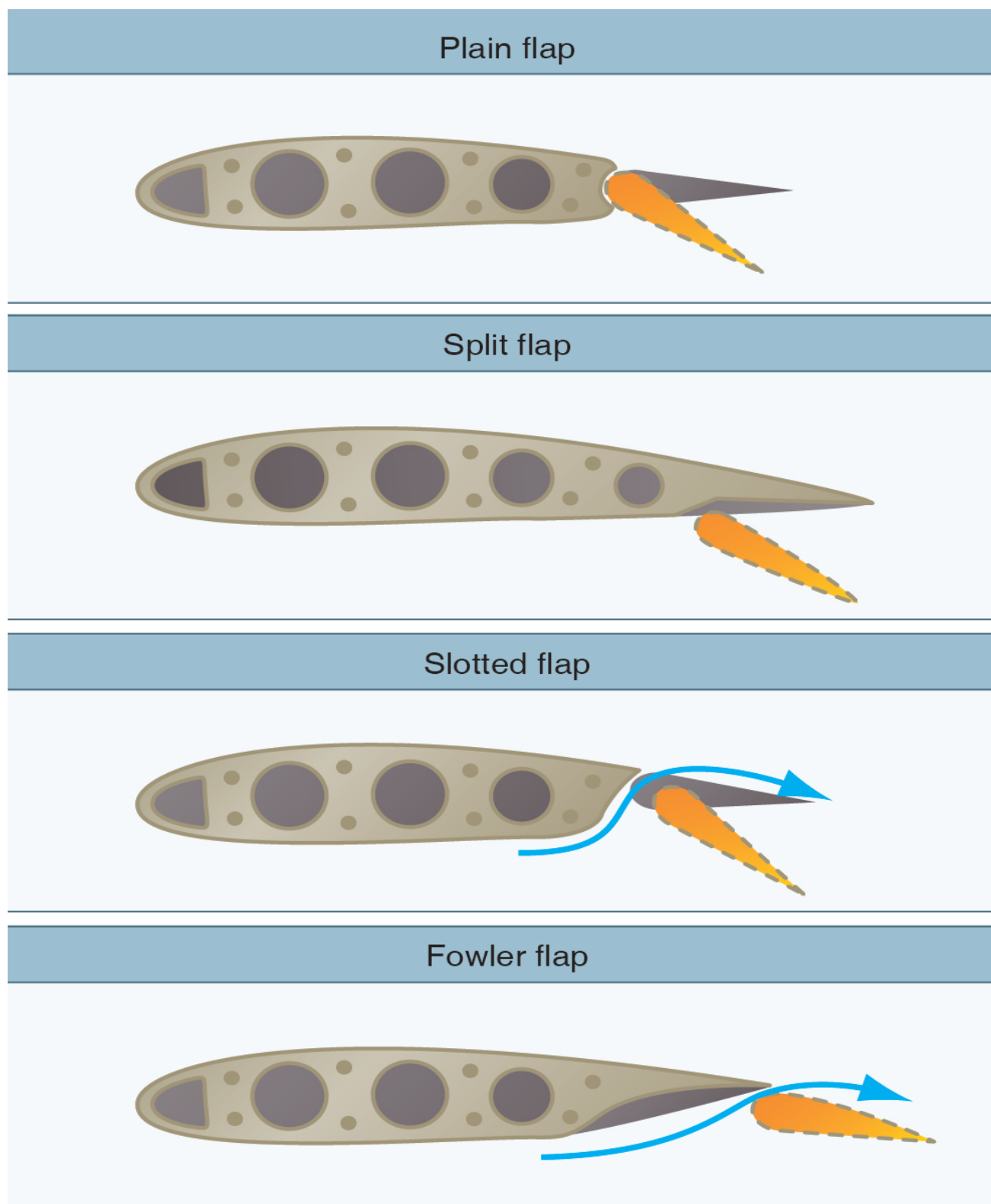


Figure 12-4. Four basic types of flaps.

The plain or hinge flap is a hinged section of the wing. The structure and function are comparable to the other control surfaces—ailerons, rudder, and elevator. The split flap is more complex. It is the lower or underside portion of the wing; deflection of the flap leaves the upper trailing edge of the wing undisturbed. It is, however, more effective than the hinge flap because of greater lift and less pitching moment, but there is more drag. Split flaps are more useful for landing, but the partially deflected hinge flaps have the advantage in takeoff. The split flap has significant drag at small deflections, whereas the hinge flap does not because airflow remains “attached” to the flap.

The slotted flap has a gap between the wing and the leading edge of the flap. The slot allows high-pressure airflow on the wing undersurface to energize the lower pressure over the top, thereby delaying flow separation. The slotted flap has greater lift than the hinge flap but less than the split flap; but, because of a higher lift-drag ratio, it gives better takeoff and climb performance. Small deflections of the slotted flap give a higher drag than the hinge flap but less than the split. This allows the slotted flap to be used for takeoff.

The Fowler flap deflects down and aft to increase the wing area. This flap can be multi-slotted making it the most complex of the trailing-edge systems. This system does, however, give the maximum lift coefficient. Drag characteristics at small deflections are much like the slotted flap. Fowler flaps are most commonly used on larger airplanes because of their structural complexity and difficulty in sealing the slots.

Operational Procedures

It would be impossible to discuss all the many airplane design and flap combinations. Pilots should refer to the Federal Aviation Administration (FAA) approved Airplane Flight Manual and/or Pilot’s Operating Handbook (AFM/POH) for a given airplane. However, while some AFM/POHs are specific as to operational use of flaps, others leave the use of flaps to pilot discretion. Since flaps are often used for landings and takeoffs, when the airplane is close to the ground, pilot judgment and error avoidance are of critical importance.

Since the recommendations given in the AFM/POH are based on the airplane and the flap design, the pilot should relate the manufacturer’s recommendation to aerodynamic effects of flaps. This requires basic background knowledge of flap aerodynamics and geometry. With this information, a decision as to the degree of flap deflection and time of deflection based on runway and approach conditions relative to the wind conditions can be made.

The time of flap extension and the degree of deflection are related. Large changes in flap deflection at one single point in the landing pattern can produce large lift changes that require significant pitch and power changes in order to maintain airspeed and descent angle. Consequently, there is an advantage to extending flaps in increments while in the landing pattern. Incremental deflection of flaps on downwind, base leg, and final approach allow smaller adjustments of pitch and power and support a stabilized approach.

While normal, soft-field, or short-field landings require minimal speed at touchdown, a short-field obstacle approach requires minimum speed and a steep approach angle. Flap extension, particularly beyond 30°, results in significant levels of drag. The drag can produce a high sink rate that the pilot needs to control with power. When a pilot uses power during a steep approach or short-field approach to offset the drag produced by the flaps, the landing flare becomes critical. A reduction in power too early can result in a hard landing, airplane damage, or loss of control. A reduction in power too late causes the airplane to float down the runway.

Crosswind component is another factor to be considered in the degree of flap extension. The deflected flap presents a surface area for the wind to act on. With flaps extended in a crosswind, the wing on the upwind side is more affected than the downwind wing. The effect is reduced to a slight extent in the crabbed approach since the airplane is more nearly aligned with the wind. When using a wing-low approach, the lowered wing partially blocks the upwind flap. The dihedral of the wing combined with the flap and wind make lateral control more difficult. Lateral control becomes more difficult as flap extension reaches maximum and the crosswind becomes perpendicular to the runway.

With flaps extended, the crosswind effects on the wing become more pronounced as the airplane reaches the ground. The wing, flap, and ground on the upwind side of the airplane form a “container” that is filled with air by the crosswind. Since the flap is located behind the main landing gear, wind striking the deflected flap tends to yaw the airplane into the wind and raise the upwind wing. The raised wing reduces the tire forces and further increases the tendency to turn into the wind. Proper control position (ailerons into the wind) is essential for maintaining runway alignment. Depending on the amount of crosswind, it may be necessary to retract the flaps soon after touchdown in order to maintain control of the airplane.

The go-around is another factor to consider when making a decision about degree of flap deflection and about where in the landing pattern to extend flaps. Because of the nose-down pitching moment produced with flap extension, trim is used to offset this pitching moment. Application of full power in the go-around increases the airflow over the wing. This produces additional lift causing significant changes in pitch. The pitch-up tendency does not diminish completely with flap retraction because of the trim setting. Expedient retraction of flaps is desirable to eliminate drag; however, the pilot should be prepared for rapid changes in pitch forces as the result of trim and the increase in airflow over the control surfaces. *[Figure 12-5]*

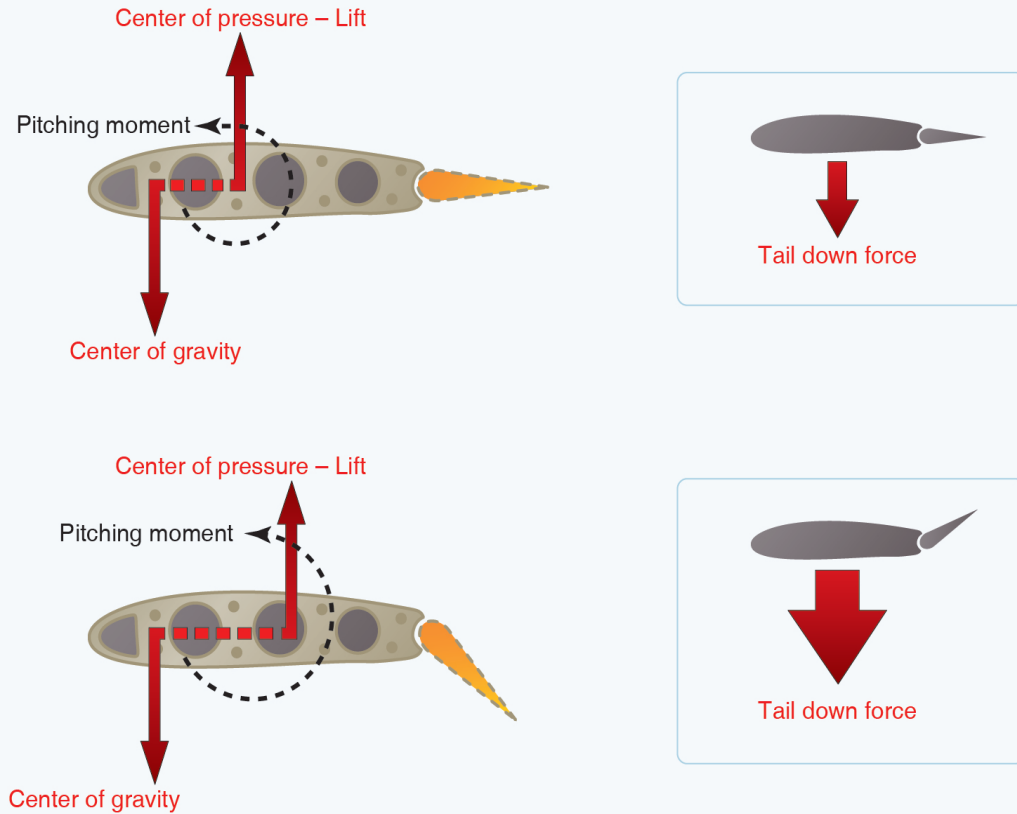


Figure 12-5. Flaps extended pitching moment.

During a go-around, the pilot should carefully monitor pitch and airspeed and expect that the degree of flap deflection and the design configuration of the horizontal tail relative to the wing will affect go-around characteristics. The pilot should carefully monitor pitch and airspeed, control flap retraction to minimize altitude loss, and use rudder for coordination. Considering these factors, it is good practice to extend the same degree of flaps at the same point in the landing pattern for each landing. Consistent use of flaps in the traffic pattern allows for a preplanned and familiar go-around sequence based on the airplane's position in the landing pattern.

There is no single formula to determine the degree of flap deflection to be used on landing because a landing involves variables that are dependent on each other. The AFM/POH for the particular airplane contains the manufacturer's recommendations for some landing situations. On the other hand, AFM/POH information on flap usage for takeoff is more precise. The manufacturer's requirements are based on the climb performance produced by a given flap design. Under no circumstances should a flap setting given in the AFM/POH be exceeded for takeoff.

Controllable-Pitch Propeller

Fixed-pitch propellers are designed for best efficiency at one particular revolutions per minute (rpm) setting and one airspeed. A fixed-pitch propeller provides suitable performance in a narrow range of airspeeds. However, fixed-pitch efficiency suffers considerably when operating outside of this range. To provide improved propeller efficiency through a wide range of operation, the propeller blade angle needs to be controllable.

Constant-Speed Propeller

A constant-speed propeller keeps the blade angle adjusted for maximum efficiency during most flight conditions. The pilot controls the engine rpm indirectly by means of a propeller control, which is connected to the propeller governor. For maximum takeoff power, the propeller control is moved all the way forward to the low pitch/high rpm position, and the throttle is moved forward to the maximum allowable manifold pressure position. [Figure 12- 6] To reduce power for climb or cruise, the pilot reduces manifold pressure to the desired value with the throttle, and then reduces engine rpm by moving the propeller control back toward the high pitch/low rpm position. The pilot sets the rpm accurately using the tachometer.

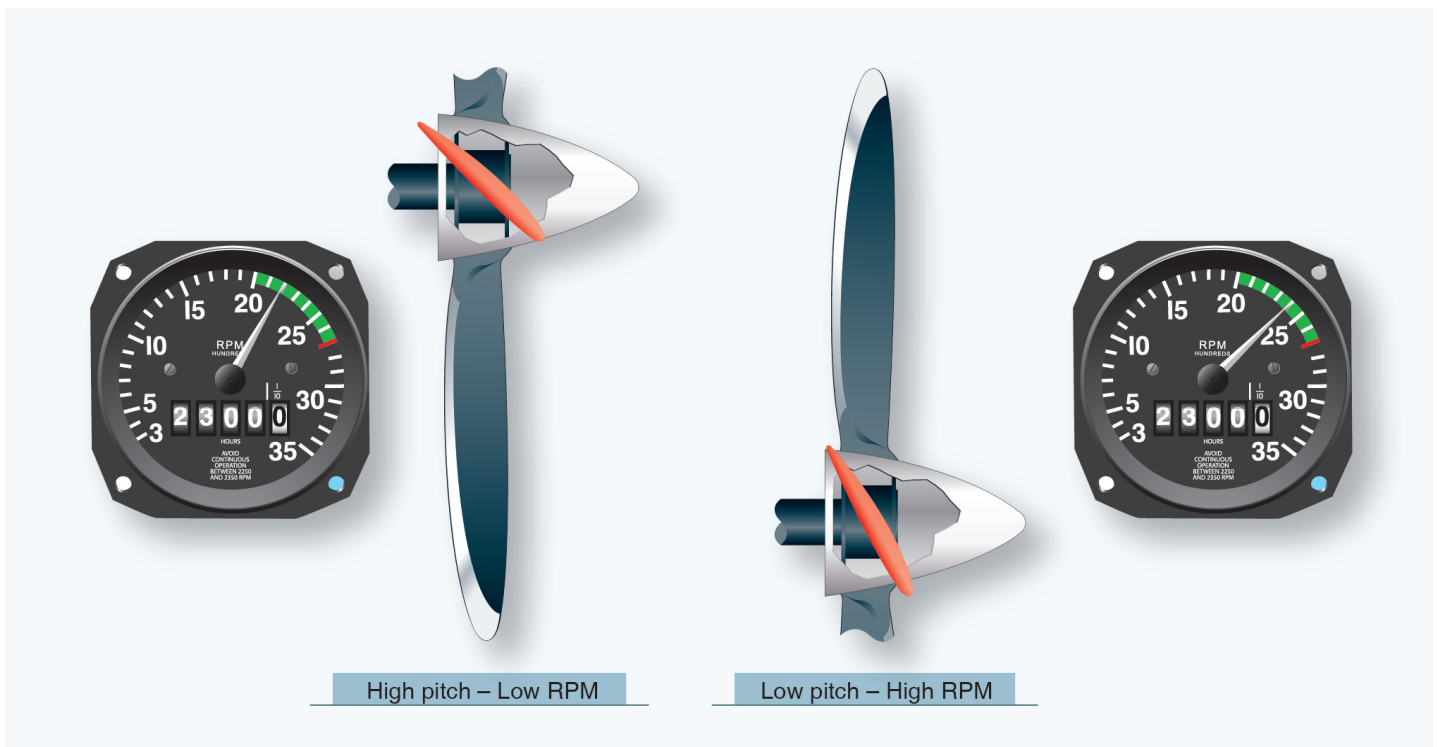


Figure 12-6. *Controllable-pitch propeller pitch angles.*

When an airplane engine runs at a constant governed speed, the torque (force) exerted by the engine at the propeller shaft equals the force resisting the moving blades. The pilot uses the propeller control to change engine rpm by adjusting the propeller blade pitch, which increases or decreases the air resistance on the rotating propeller. For example, pulling back on the propeller control moves the propeller blades to a higher pitch. This increases the air resistance exerted on the spinning propeller and puts an additional load on the engine, which causes it to slow down until the forces reach equilibrium. Advancing the propeller control reduces the propeller blade pitch. This reduces the resistance of the air against the propeller. In response, the engine rpm increases until the opposing forces balance. In order for this system to function, a constant-speed propeller governor needs the means to sense engine rpm and a means to control the propeller AOA. In most cases, the governor is geared to the engine crankshaft giving it a means to sense engine rpm. The "Blade Angle Control" section of this chapter discusses the ways a propeller governor adjusts propeller blade angle.

Other factors affect constant-speed propeller blade pitch. When an airplane is nosed up into a climb from level flight, the engine tends to slow down. Since the governor is sensitive to small changes in engine rpm, it decreases the blade angle just enough to keep the engine speed constant. If the airplane is nosed down into a dive, the governor increases the blade angle just enough to keep the engine speed constant. This allows the engine to maintain a constant rpm and power output. The pilot can also set engine power output by changing rpm at a constant manifold pressure; by changing the manifold pressure at a constant rpm; or by changing both rpm and manifold pressure. The constant-speed propeller makes it possible to obtain an infinite number of power settings.

Takeoff, Climb, and Cruise

During takeoff, when the forward motion of the airplane is at a low speed and when maximum power and thrust are required, the constant-speed propeller sets up a low propeller blade pitch. The low blade angle keeps the blade angle of attack, with respect to the relative wind, small and efficient at the low speed. [Figure 12-7]

At the same time, low blade pitch allows the propeller to handle a smaller mass of air per revolution. This light propeller load allows the engine to turn at maximum rpm and develop maximum engine power. Although the mass of air per revolution is small, the number of rpm is high, and propeller thrust is maximized until brake release. Thrust is maximum at the beginning of the takeoff roll and then decreases as the airplane gains speed.

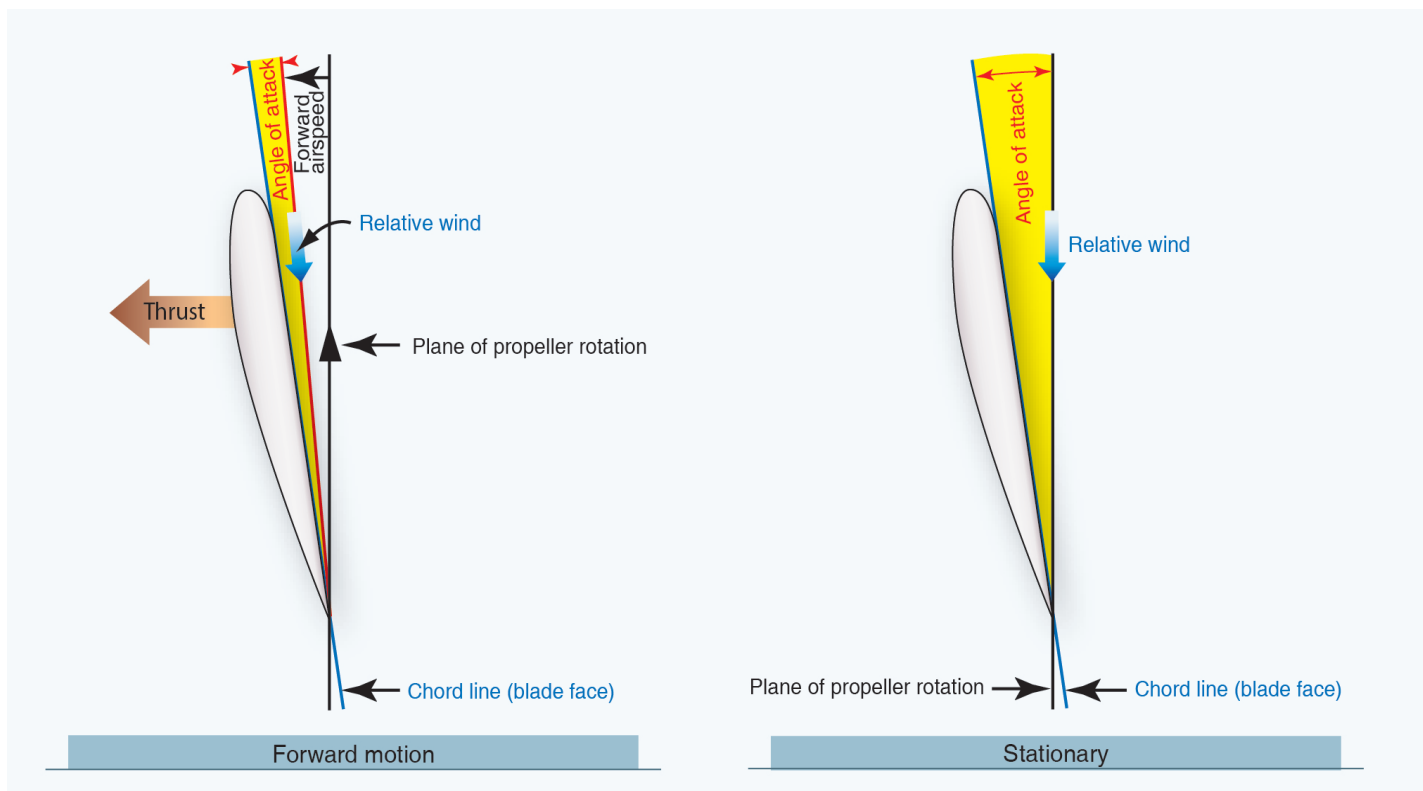


Figure 12-7. Propeller blade angle.

As the airspeed increases after lift-off, the load on the engine is lightened because of the small blade angle. The governor senses this and increases the blade angle slightly. Again, the higher blade angle, with the higher speed, keeps the blade AOA with respect to the relative wind small and efficient.

For climb after takeoff, the power output of the engine is reduced to climb power by decreasing the manifold pressure and increasing the blade angle to lower engine rpm. At the higher (climb) airspeed and the higher blade angle, the propeller is handling a greater mass of air per second at a lower slipstream velocity. This reduction in power is offset by the increase in propeller efficiency. The blade AOA is again kept small by the increase in the blade angle with an increase in airspeed.

At cruising altitude, when the airplane is in level flight, airspeed increases, and less power is required. Consequently, the pilot uses the throttle to reduce manifold pressure and uses the propeller control to reduce engine rpm. The higher airspeed and higher blade angle enable the propeller to handle a still greater mass of air per second at still smaller slipstream velocity. At normal cruising speeds, propeller efficiency is at or near maximum efficiency.

Blade Angle Control

Once the rpm settings for the propeller are selected, the propeller governor automatically adjusts the blade angle to maintain the selected rpm. It does this by using oil pressure. Generally, the oil pressure used for pitch change comes directly from the engine lubricating system. When a governor is employed, engine oil is used and the oil pressure is usually boosted by a pump that is integrated with the governor. The higher pressure provides a quicker blade angle change. The rpm at which the propeller is to operate is adjusted in the governor head. The pilot changes this setting by changing the position of the governor rack through the flight deck propeller control.

On some constant-speed propellers, changes in pitch are obtained by the use of an inherent centrifugal twisting moment of the blades that tends to flatten the blades toward low pitch and oil pressure applied to a hydraulic piston connected to the propeller blades which moves them toward high pitch. Another type of constant-speed propeller uses counterweights attached to the blade shanks in the hub. Governor oil pressure and the blade twisting moment move the blades toward the low pitch position, and centrifugal force acting on the counterweights moves them (and the blades) toward the high pitch position. In the first case above, governor oil pressure moves the blades towards high pitch and in the second case, governor oil pressure and the blade twisting moment move the blades toward low pitch. A loss of governor oil pressure, therefore, affects each differently.

Governing Range

The blade angle range for constant-speed propellers varies from about 11.5° to 40°. The higher the speed of the airplane, the greater the blade angle range. [Figure 12-8]

Aircraft Type	Design Speed (mph)	Blade Angle Range	Pitch	
			Low	High
Fixed gear	160	11½°	10½°	22°
Retractable	180	15°	11°	26°
Turbo retractable	225/240	20°	14°	34°
Turbine retractable	250/300	30°	10°	40°
Transport retractable	325	40°	10/15°	50/55°

Figure 12-8. Blade angle range (values are approximate).

The range of possible blade angles between high and low blade angle pitch stops define the propeller's governing range. As long as the propeller's blades operate within the governing range and not against either pitch stop, a constant engine rpm is maintained. However, once the propeller blades reach their pitch-stop limit, the engine rpm increases or decreases with changes in airspeed and propeller load similar to a fixed-pitch propeller. For example, once a specific rpm is selected, if the airspeed decreases enough, the propeller blades reduce pitch in an attempt to maintain the selected rpm until they contact their low pitch stops. From that point, any further reduction in airspeed causes the engine rpm to decrease. Conversely, if the airspeed increases, the pitch angle of the propeller blades increase until the high pitch stop is reached. The engine rpm then begins to increase.

Constant-Speed Propeller Operation

The engine is started with the propeller control in the low pitch/high rpm position. This position reduces the load or drag of the propeller and the result is easier starting and warm-up of the engine. During warm-up, the propeller blade changing mechanism is operated slowly and smoothly through a full cycle. This is done by moving the propeller control (with the manifold pressure set to produce about 1,600 rpm) to the high pitch/low rpm position, allowing the rpm to stabilize, and then moving the propeller control back to the low pitch takeoff position. This is done for two reasons: to determine whether the system is operating correctly and to circulate fresh warm oil through the propeller governor system. Remember the oil has been trapped in the propeller cylinder since the last time the engine was shut down. There is a certain amount of leakage from the propeller cylinder, and the oil tends to congeal, especially if the outside air temperature is low. Consequently, if the propeller is not exercised before takeoff, there is a possibility that the engine may over-speed on takeoff.

An airplane equipped with a constant-speed propeller has better takeoff performance than a similarly powered airplane equipped with a fixed-pitch propeller. This is because with a constant-speed propeller, an airplane can develop its maximum rated horsepower (red line on the tachometer) while motionless. An airplane with a fixed-pitch propeller, on the other hand, needs to accelerate down the runway to increase airspeed and aerodynamically unload the propeller so that rpm and horsepower can steadily build up to their maximum. With a constant-speed propeller, the tachometer reading should come up to within 40 rpm of the red line as soon as full power is applied and remain there for the entire takeoff. Excessive manifold pressure raises the cylinder combustion pressures, resulting in high stresses within the engine. Excessive pressure also produces high-engine temperatures. A combination of high manifold pressure and low rpm can induce damaging detonation. In order to avoid these situations, the following sequence should be followed when making power changes.

- When increasing power, increase the rpm first and then the manifold pressure
- When decreasing power, decrease the manifold pressure first and then decrease the rpm

The cruise power charts in the AFM/POH should be consulted when selecting cruise power settings. Whatever the combinations of rpm and manifold pressure listed in these charts—they have been flight tested and approved by engineers for the respective airframe and engine manufacturer. Therefore, if there are power settings, such as 2,100 rpm and 24 inches manifold pressure in the power chart, they are approved for use. With a constant-speed propeller, a power descent can be made without over-speeding the engine. The system compensates for the increased airspeed of the descent by increasing the propeller blade angles. If the descent is too rapid or is being made from a high altitude, the maximum blade angle limit of the blades is not sufficient to hold the rpm constant. When this occurs, the rpm is responsive to any change in throttle setting.

Although the governor responds quickly to any change in throttle setting, a sudden and large increase in the throttle setting causes a momentary over-speeding of the engine until the blades become adjusted to absorb the increased power. If an emergency demanding full power should arise during approach, the sudden advancing of the throttle causes momentary over-speeding of the engine beyond the rpm for which the governor is adjusted.

Some important points to remember concerning constant speed propeller operation are:

- The red line on the tachometer not only indicates maximum allowable rpm; it also indicates the rpm required to obtain the engine's rated horsepower.
- A momentary propeller over-speed may occur when the throttle is advanced rapidly for takeoff. This is usually not serious if the rated rpm is not exceeded by 10 percent for more than 3 seconds.
- The green arc on the tachometer indicates the normal operating range. When developing power in this range, the engine drives the propeller. Below the green arc, however, it is usually the windmilling propeller that powers the engine. Prolonged operation below the green arc can be detrimental to the engine. On takeoffs from low elevation airports, the manifold pressure in inches of mercury may exceed the rpm. This is normal in most cases, but the pilot should always consult the AFM/POH for limitations.
- All power changes should be made smoothly and slowly to avoid over-boosting and/or over-speeding.

Turbocharging

The turbocharged engine allows the pilot to maintain sufficient cruise power at high altitudes where there is less drag, which means faster true airspeeds and increased range with fuel economy. At the same time, the powerplant has flexibility and can be flown at a low altitude without the increased fuel consumption of a turbine engine. When attached to the standard powerplant, the turbocharger does not take any horsepower from the engine to operate; it is relatively simple mechanically, and some models can pressurize the cabin as well.

The turbocharger is an exhaust-driven device that raises the pressure and density of the induction air delivered to the engine. It consists of two separate components: a compressor and a turbine connected by a common shaft. The compressor supplies pressurized air to the engine for high-altitude operation. The compressor and its housing are between the ambient air intake and the induction air manifold. The turbine and its housing are part of the exhaust system and utilize the flow of exhaust gases to drive the compressor. [Figure 12-9]

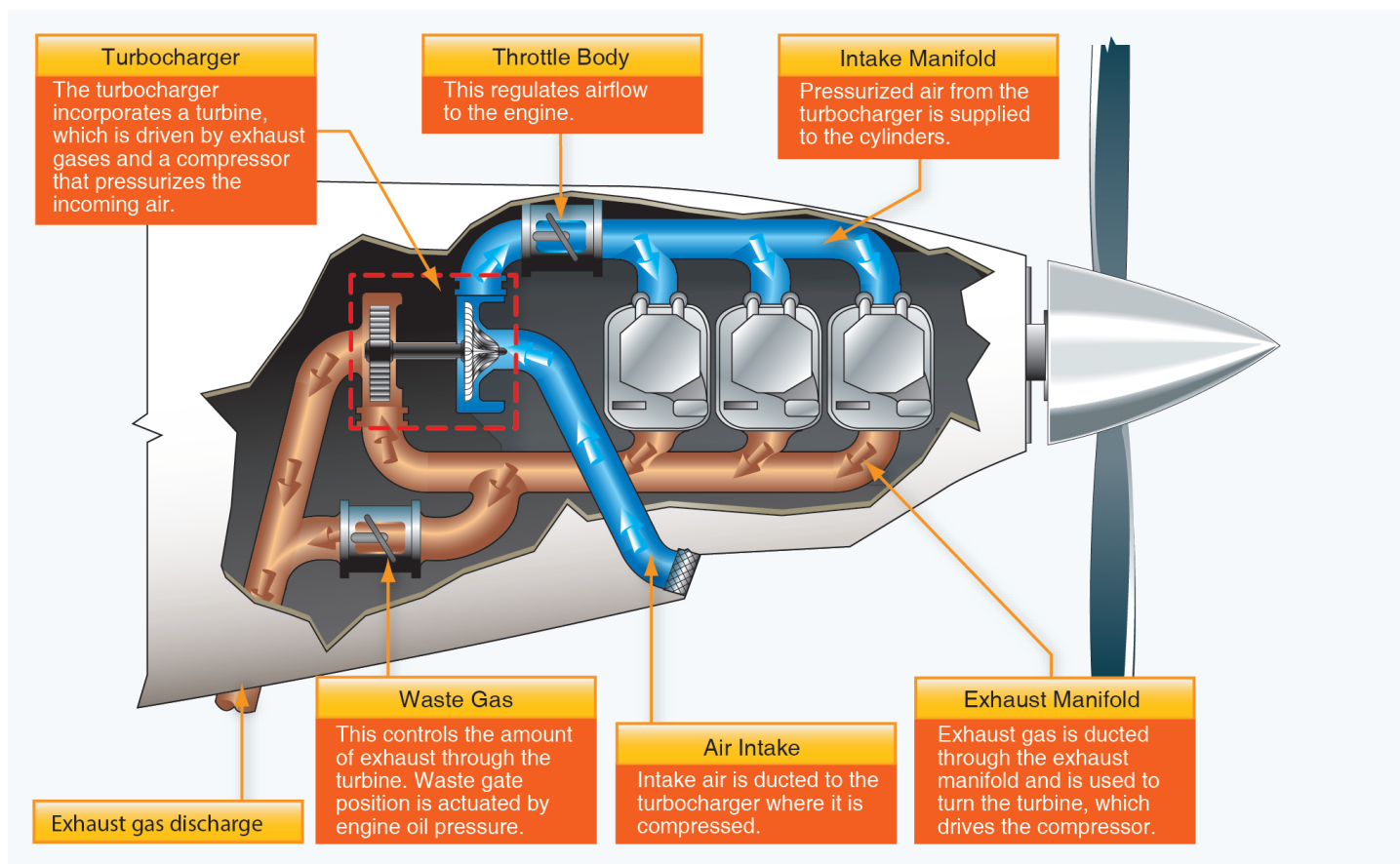


Figure 12-9. Turbocharging system.